

Antoni J. Żyndul

Centre for Language Evolution Studies (CLES)
Nicolaus Copernicus University in Toruń, Poland
antonizyndul@gmail.com
orcid.org/0009-0007-3310-0832

“Written by a Man” – A Compliment or an Insult? A Stylometric Analysis of Female Character Complexity in Male- and Female-Authored Fiction.

Abstract. This study investigates whether male and female authors differ in the linguistic complexity they attribute to female characters in contemporary fiction. Drawing on a custom corpus compiled of fragments of dialogue spoken by female characters in one hundred fantasy novels published in the 2010s, the analysis applies stylometric methods to measure two forms of linguistic complexity: lexical complexity and syntactic complexity. Statistical modelling reveals no significant difference between male- and female-authored texts in terms of lexical complexity. However, syntactic complexity differs significantly, in favour of male-authored dialogue. These findings partially contradict expectations grounded in feminist theory, suggesting that women would have the tools and experiences to produce more complex female characters. This paper presents the first, to this date, stylometric analysis of gender effects on character complexity.

Keywords: stylometry; male gaze; character complexity; natural language processing; corpus linguistics.

1. Introduction

With each new generation come new trends and in-group jokes, understandable to the select few. A phrase which is now gaining traction in online communities is the idea of a text clearly being “written by a man”, or

“written by a woman”. As explained by Urban Dictionary, a dictionary of online jokes, being “written by a man” is “typically used to describe a female [character] who fits the stereotypical beauty standards that appeal to men. e.g. innocence, natural beauty, etc.” (www.urbandictionary.com/define.php?term=written%20by%20a%20man, DOA 20.11.2025). As highlighted by the online dictionary, this label is seen as something pejorative, while a text written by a woman has positive connotations. The trend appears to have gained traction on the TikTok platform; however, similar online communities existed prior to its emergence, e.g. Reddit’s *r/MenWritingWomen* community (www.reddit.com/r/menwritingwomen, DOA 20.11.2025). The community members post book fragments about women written by male authors, in which the female characters are often flat, unbelievable, or oversexualised. The analogy between the trendy phrase and the online community is clear; by popular belief, male authors have a tendency of producing unrealistic female characters who lack complexity, and abide by gender norms dictated by the male-dominated society.

This study aims to empirically test whether this notion is backed by any evidence, or is simply a commonly accepted misconception. Specifically, the work aims to determine whether men and women write female characters differently. I hypothesise that there is a difference in the complexity of female characters penned by male authors in comparison to female authors. To test the hypothesis, I use methods from corpus linguistics and stylometry and discuss them in the light of gender and literary studies.

2. Idiolect, Sociolect, and Stylometry

Every individual is thought to possess their own distinct style of speaking and writing; this style is known as one’s idiolect (Coulthard, 2004). Daelemans (2013, p. 451) states that a plethora of psychological factors affect idiolect, among which one can find “personality, mental health, and being a native speaker or not; sociological factors include age, gender, education level, and region of language acquisition”. When detailing an individual’s idiolect, an expert may proceed by analysing a variety of texts written by an author in search of common discriminating characteristics. In this study, which focuses on a specific social group, not individuals, the idea of idiolect is extended into sociolect: the idea that if a group of authors shares a similar background, e.g. gender, time period, or social class, texts which they pro-

duce will show more similarities within group than between group (Louwerse, 2004).

Stylometry is a field which largely builds on the ideas of idiolect and sociolect. Stylometric analysis can be defined as the process in which "[t]he stylometrist looks for a unit of counting which translates accurately the 'style' of the text, where we may define 'style' as a set of measurable patterns which may be unique to an author" (Holmes, 1994, p. 87). This definition is broad and leaves substantial leeway, which allows for various interpretations of what a "unit of style" can be. Some typical operationalisations measurements are, among others, sentence length, sentence complexity, word frequency, or recurrent spelling errors (Gomez Adorno et al., 2018). The unit of style is necessary in each of the sub-tasks of stylometry: from authorship attribution which the field is most commonly associated with, to authorship profiling, authorship verification and the more niche sub-field of stylochronometry. One of these subtasks, profiling, is concerned with identifying characteristic traits of an author (e.g. their gender or age), without precisely determining the author's identity (Neal, 2017). With the idea of sociolect in mind, this stylometric approach can be broadened and implemented to characterise groups of similar backgrounds: in this study's case, male authors and female authors.

3. Gender

Although it often appears to be a trivial aspect of everyday life, gender permeates both the way in which an individual expresses behaviours and the way in which they interact with stimuli in the external world. This has been carefully highlighted in feminist studies (see de Beauvoir, 1949; Criado-Perez, 2019). Without exception, this is also an aspect present in literature. Mills (1995, p. 65) claims that "the author is seen as someone who is writing within a set of discursive parameters which are not of her own making or of which she is not even necessarily consciously aware. Similarly, the reader is subject to many discursive pressures which lead her to read in particular ways". With relation to sociolect, this notion serves as the backbone of the study; an author may unknowingly express a bias linked to their gender, and the style of a text is inherently influenced by the background of an author.

The gender bias is especially notable in the context of male authors portraying women in literature and mass media. A history of unequal power dy-

namics influences how contemporary men and women view the world; this, in turn, can often lead men to produce skewed representations of women's experiences. Laura Mulvey (1999) linked these ideas to film and proposed the notion of the "male gaze", stating that:

In a world ordered by sexual imbalance, pleasure in looking has been split between active/male and passive/female. The determining male gaze projects its phantasy on to the female figure which is styled accordingly. In their traditional exhibitionist role women are simultaneously looked at and displayed, with their appearance coded for strong visual and erotic impact so that they can be said to connote to-be-looked-at-ness. Women displayed as serial object is the leit-motiff of erotic spectacle [...] (1999, p. 837).

By introducing the male gaze, Mulvey draws attention to the unreliability of female characters presented by men. The voyeuristic nature of the male perspective warps a woman's role in film; the female character is an object of visual sexual gratification, meant to elicit a response from other male viewers. Her role ceases to serve a more meaningful function in terms of plot and narrative drive.

Importantly, Mulvey's theory has since been applied to other arts outside of film, including literature. The camera, film characters, and audience, which stand as the three pillars of the male gaze, are replaced by a narrator, a group of protagonists and a reader (Grate, 2015). While the notion of a "gaze" typically involves the act of seeing, the analogy still stands; an author's role in fiction is to paint a mental image with words, and this is the medium in which the bias is executed. Potentially relevant to this study, the male gaze is also accompanied by an inverse theory, which proposes the existence of a female gaze. By reclaiming the active voice in fiction, women have the possibility to present female characters in a more positive light, while also writing them to serve as driving agents. According to Conaway (2018), the female gaze may be at times equated to a "feminist gaze", as this approach in the arts strives for a sense of equality between the genders.

From the linguistic perspective, the combined impact of language and gender on reality has long been acknowledged; Lakoff notes that women face discrimination both in how they are taught to use language, and in how language is used to talk about them (1973). In terms of the former, as a result of gender roles in society, women are expected to use more hedging statements and indirect language, which, in turn, weakens their sense of presence and

hinders their ability to take on leadership roles. As an example of the latter, it is argued that when speaking about women, euphemisms are often used to diminish authority, like when using the words "girl" or "lady", instead of "woman" (Lakoff, 1973, p. 58). Such aspects may further shape how female characters are presented in media, subconsciously influencing both creators and recipients.

4. Previous Studies on Gender in Creative Writing

Not much research has been done on the influence of an author's gender on the style of their writing, especially not in terms of analysing complexity. Nonetheless, some background literature on the topic has been published. From the perspective of social sciences, Gardiner (1981) claims that female-authored prose possesses some characteristics which are divergent from the male mainstream. Gardiner's (1981) main argument is that women's fiction is largely based on comparison and paradox, with female authors highlighting their distinctiveness from men, as well as other women, to strengthen a feeling of personal identity. Attention is also drawn to the prevalence of maternity in a woman's life, and the archetype of the mother, both a role model, as well as an individual which the woman wants to distinguish herself from. These notions portray female characters as projections of the author's identity, as they bear the burden of a woman's struggles, dreams, passions, and hopes. One may believe that this is in line with the idea of female-authored heroines being more complex and "life-like".

In terms of studies providing quantitative results, Argamon et al. (2003) analysed the British National Corpus (BNC) in search of differences between texts written by men and those written by women, regardless of genre. The researchers found a notable difference between the genders, both in terms of syntax, and in terms of lexical choices. Female literature was found to use more pronouns, and was classified as "involved", according to Biber's (1995) dimensions of involvement and informativeness. Contrarily, male literature was characterised as more noun-modifier dense, and "informational". Involved literature uses more pronouns, private verbs, verbs related to senses, and discourse markers, whereas informational discourse is characterised by longer words and lexically dense sentences (Xiao, 2009). More recent studies have been done on Swedish literature, finding that male- and female-authored fiction also differs in terms of semantic themes; literature authored

by women was found to contain more references to emotions and mental processes, the home, as well as social relations, whereas literature authored by men contained more references to weapons, violence, and geometry- and direction-related concepts (Dahllöf, 2023).

5. The Study

Similar to Argamon et al.'s (2003) research, this study aims to find a link between the linguistic features of a text and an author's gender. The study involved compiling a corpus of male- and female-authored excerpts of text, writing a computer script for analysing linguistic complexity, and carrying out statistical analyses on the obtained results. The code used for analysing linguistic complexity has been made publicly available under the following address: github.com/antonijordan/MFAuthorsStylometry (DOA 20.11.2025).

5.1. The Corpus

To answer the research question, a custom corpus was constructed. The corpus consisted of 150-word long dialogue excerpts from one-hundred novels. The process of compiling the corpus consisted of three main steps. First, I narrowed down the criteria for selecting texts to include; to avoid any personal bias, I resorted to using a list called “Best Fantasy Books of the 2010s” provided by one of the most popular book-tracking websites: *GoodReads* (www.goodreads.com/list/show/38633, DOA 23.06.2024). From the list, I chose one hundred books, fifty written by men, and fifty written by women. The condition was that an individual author could only have one entry, meaning that if an author appeared more than once on the *GoodReads* list, any duplicates were skipped in the process. To avoid genre differences influencing the analysis, the choice was narrowed down to fantasy novels. The final criterion for the text was that it should be originally written in English, as English language models are characterised by the best performance.¹ These decisions were made to ensure validity of the corpus to the research task, with all of the entries coming from the same time period and genre, as well as being additionally seen as popular in the literary mainstream.

¹ Even multilingual models perform better when the text is translated into English – see Etzaniz et al. (2023).

The next step consisted of extracting text fragments from each of the hundred entries, as the study was only concerned with the representation of women. As I wanted to analyse the complexity of heroines, and not the author’s world-building abilities, I decided to extract fragments of dialogue spoken by the female characters, to better represent the way in which they expressed themselves. The first one-hundred-and-fifty words of female-spoken dialogue were extracted from each book and entered into the corpus. The length of the fragments was determined by copyright restrictions; more than four-hundred words could not be extracted from each book (Xiao, 2010). While choosing novels in the public domain could have allowed me to overcome this limitation, it was important to the study to choose modern literature, as this is more significant for contemporary times.

The final step of the procedure entailed compiling the corpus. Aside from the text fragments, metadata was collected and catalogued; this included the year of publication, author name, author sex, and the title of the source book. The corpus itself cannot be shared and redistributed due to aforementioned copyright restrictions.

5.2. Linguistic Complexity

The aim of the study was to assess the possible correlation between an author’s sex and the level of linguistic complexity they use to portray female characters. The concept of linguistic complexity, or language complexity, is widely debated in the scientific community because there is no single widely accepted operationalisation. Different linguistic traditions approach it from their own perspectives. Miestamo et al. (2008) list three main types of complexity: epistemic, ontological, and functional. The epistemic view considers language complex if it takes more time or elements to explain. The ontological perspective examines structural features like constituency and dependency. The functional view focuses on the cognitive effort involved in processing and understanding language. This study takes an ontological approach, assessing complexity based on the statistical properties of language. In this study, I select Moving Average Type-to-Token Ratio (MATTR) and Average Dependency Distance (ADD) as the direct operationalisations of complexity. Both of them characterise different levels at which complexity can be realised, that is the lexical and the syntactic level.

5.2.1. Moving Average Type-to-Token Ratio

Moving Average Type-to-token Ratio (MATTR) is an algorithm based on Type-to-Token Ratio (TTR). TTR can be used to measure the lexical complexity of a text by dividing the number of total meaningful units appearing in a sequence (tokens), by the number of unique lemmas (types). However, the algorithm is not without its flaws; as it is used on text fragments with a limited number of tokens, the longer the text, the lower the TTR. MATTR, introduced by Covington and McFall (2010), utilises a moving window technique. As stated by the algorithm's authors (2010, p. 96):

We cut the Gordian knot by computing and averaging the moving average type-token ratio (MATTR). This approach was also advocated by Köhler and Galle (1993). We choose a window length (say 500 words) and then compute the TTR for words 1–500, then for words 2–501, then 3–502, and so on to the end of the text. The mean of all these TTRs is a measure of the lexical diversity of the entire text and is not affected by text length nor by any statistical assumptions. Further, the individual TTRs can be compared in order to detect changes within the text.

As a result, MATTR is insensitive to text length and a more accurate algorithm for calculating the lexical complexity of a text. It is the safer option, even if the text fragments used in this particular corpus were of similar length; the obtained results are more uniform, and, therefore, valid.

5.2.2. Average Dependency Distance

To operationalise syntactic complexity, one must first define syntax and parsing. In linguistics, two main syntactic traditions exist: constituency grammar and dependency grammar. Constituency grammar, also known as Context-Free Grammar (Chomsky, 1956), proposes that each sentence can be divided into hierarchical phrases, also known as constituents. In contrast, dependency grammar (Tesnière, 1959) does not look for connections between phrases, but words themselves. Words are thought to be linked by binary dependencies, which “hold between a syntactically subordinate word, called the dependent, and another word on which it depends, called the head” (Kuebler et al., 2009). From this, dependency graphs can be built. Dependency grammar has been well-researched from the perspective of NLP research, with some studies finding that it is more adequate for computing

tasks, due to its higher accuracy (Buchholz & Marsi, 2006; Nivre et al., 2007). I decided to operationalise syntactic complexity on the basis of dependency parsing, by implementing Average Dependency Distance (ADD), proposed by Oya (2011). This is applicable to the study, as the longer the average distance between all dependencies in a sentence, the more complex the sentence is (Gibson, 1998).

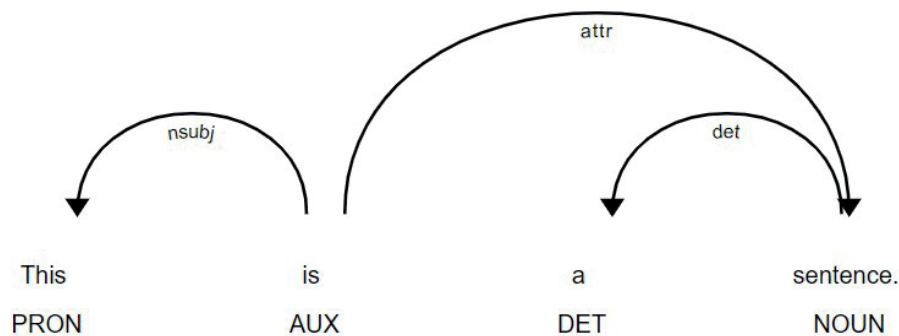


Figure 1. A simple example sentence with relatively short dependencies

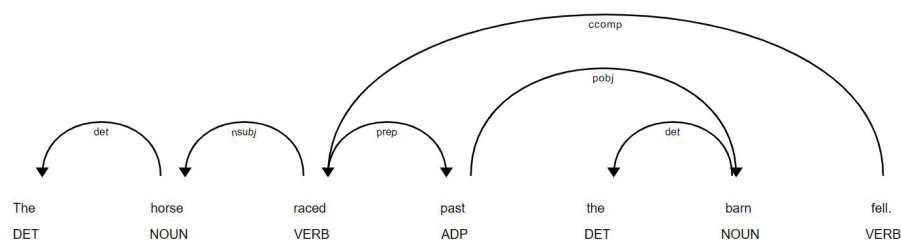


Figure 2. A sentence with more dependencies, one of which is considerably long

To test this hypothesis, Oya compiled a corpus study which compared sentences produced by native English speakers and Japanese natives who had learned English as a foreign language (2011). The study results indicate that native English speakers' sentences exhibited the highest ADD values, which suggests that dependency distance is an indicator of syntactic complexity.

Figure 1 and Figure 2 display sentences and the dependency distances between each of their constituents, displayed by overarching arrows. Sentence 1 possesses an ADD of 1.3, while Sentence 2 only has a slightly higher value of 1.5, despite being significantly longer. As ADD is calculated as an

average, both dependency distance length, as well as the general number of dependencies in total, contribute towards the final result. Moreover, ADD is a normalised measure, meaning that it is insensitive to sentence length.

6. Results

The process of executing the study consisted of three main stages: compiling a custom corpus of female characters’ dialogue fragments from one-hundred fantasy books; writing code to process the contents of the corpus and to implement the MATTR and ADD algorithm; fitting statistical models to the obtained data. In the final step, the independent variable was always the author’s sex, while the dependent variables were the MATTR or ADD values.

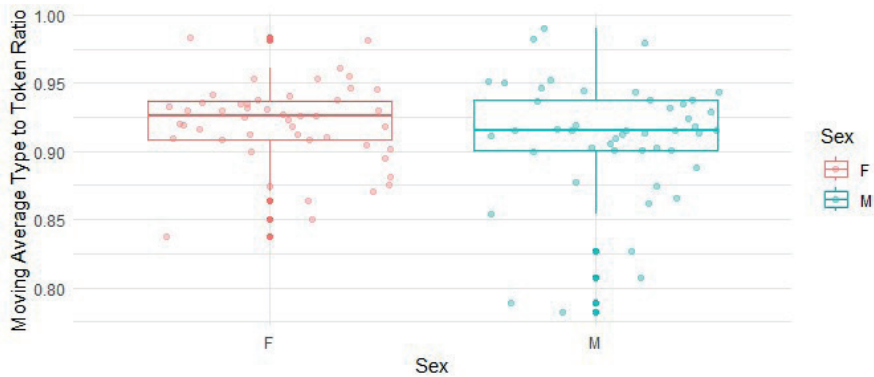


Figure 3. A box plot presenting the model fit to the data which compares MATTR values for each of the sexes

Table 1. A regression table showing the relative difference between male and female authors in terms of MATTR. The intercept is the MATTR for the male author

	Estimate	Std. Error	<i>t</i> value	<i>p</i> value
(Intercept)	0.910	0.006	165.015	<0.05
Sex: Female	0.011	0.008	1.365	0.176

The first statistical model treats an author’s sex as a predictor variable, while the MATTR is the outcome variable. As can be seen in the table, fe-

male-authored texts were characterised by a higher MATTR; however, the model did not find the difference to be statistically significant.

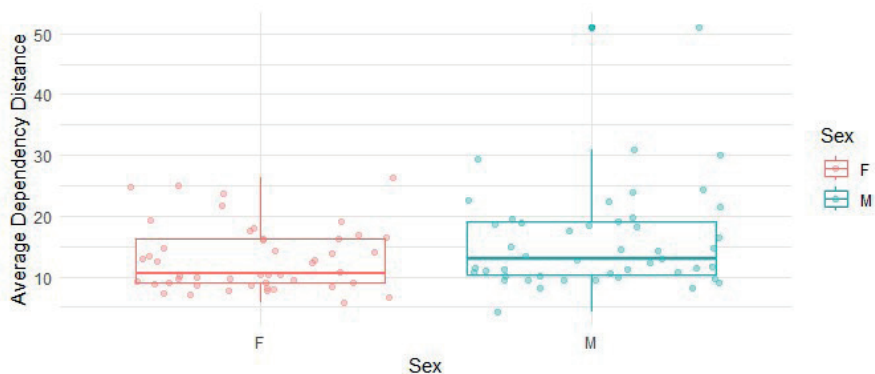


Figure 4. A box plot presenting the model fit to the data which compares ADD values for each of the sexes

Table 2. A regression table showing the relative difference between male and female authors in terms of ADD. The intercept is the ADD for the male author

	Estimate	Std. Error	<i>t</i> value	<i>p</i> value
(Intercept)	15.753	0.997	15.80	<0.05
Sex: Female	-2.902	1.403	-2.07	0.041

In the second model, once again, the predictor variable was an author’s sex, while the outcome was the ADD value of a passage. In this category, the model found the difference to be statistically significant ($p < 0.05$), as the ADD of male-authored texts was noticeably higher (SexM Estimate = 15.753, SexF Estimate = 12.851).

Table 3. A regression table representing the interaction between ADD and MATTR values as predictor variables. Sex of the author is the outcome variable

	Estimate	Std. Error	<i>z</i> value	<i>p</i> value
(Intercept)	7.914	14.214	0.557	0.578
ADD	-0.338	0.649	-0.520	0.603
MATTR	-7.422	15.213	-0.488	0.626
ADD:MATTR	0.287	0.718	0.400	0.689

The final model served as a classifier, and was fit to both of the predictor variables and their interaction. The model was not able to predict an author's sex on the basis of the interaction between a text's MATTR and ADD values ($p = 0.689$).

7. Discussion

As can be seen from the obtained data and results, my hypothesis was partially rejected. I hypothesised that there would be a difference in the way that male and female authors write female characters in fiction; while there is a significant difference in the syntactic complexity of texts, no difference in lexical complexity could be identified. On the one hand, this may be explained by the relatively small size of the corpus, or by the fact that only 150 word-long fragments could legally be extracted from each book; it is possible that in longer text excerpts, authors of both sexes could use a wider array of lexis. On the other hand, it is possible that striking differences in the words that authors of both sexes use only appear when analysing selective evidence. In line with the thought that the exception is not the rule: just because disheartening examples of "shallow" female characters exist, does not mean that – statistically – this is most often the case when men write female characters.

My hypothesis was informed by the gender discourse, feminist theory, anecdotal evidence, and opinions trending in online communities; therefore, I assumed that if a difference was to be found, it would be skewed towards the female authors. I initially hypothesised that since women share the same sex as the characters they create, they would likely reflect aspects of their own identity in them and perhaps offer a deeper understanding of the feminine. Contrary to this, the slight difference which was statistically significant actually went against all of the cited literary sources, and suggested male authors to produce more complex female characters (in terms of ADD). While the study's findings do not directly challenge the notions proposed in feminist literature, they indicate that female writers tend to construct less complex sentences. This could falsify the idea of the existence of male and female gazes. While these differences certainly appear in qualitative analyses, my quantitative results not only fail to back these theories up, but actually contradict them.

The male gaze has, however, become a staple in media commentary and criticism, and I do not aim to contradict this discourse. Theoretical pieces

have argued that if the concept is to be talked about in the contemporary landscape, it should be seen as of an even greater importance than before, due to the rise of social media and online distribution capabilities (Oliver, 2017). Therefore, an alternative interpretation of this study’s results can be that what has been established about the visual format, cannot be translated onto literary texts. Mulvey’s revolutionary thinkpiece on the male gaze clearly marked the voyeuristic capabilities of camera and film (1975). While these concepts have been mapped onto literature prior to this study (see Grate, 2015), it may be so that characters in books and films are made complex using different strategies, nullifying sex differences.

Another possible interpretation of these unexpected results is linked to the notion of complexity in general. A possible criticism concerning the study is the fact that linguistic complexity may not suffice when assessing whether a character is “complex” or not; it could be seen that linguistic complexity is only relevant to the language used by an author, and not the way in which the character is structured. This was controlled through the means of implementing a random intercept model in the data analysis; however, this may not have been sufficiently effective taking into account the sample size. An example of this was found within my corpus. In *The Golem and the Jinni*, written by Helene Wecker (2013), the main heroine is a non-human creature, who starts off at the level of intelligence of a human infant, and acquires language and abilities throughout the novel. While on the basis of lexical and syntactic complexity, the character may appear to be “simple”, her story, personality, and experiences could be incredibly complex. This highlights the importance of a dual approach, where both qualitative and quantitative aspects should always be taken into account.

8. Limitations

The drawn conclusions are only interpretations and inferences based on the obtained data. The study is not without certain limitations, related to the compiled corpus and the notions of complexity.

The corpus which I compiled for the purpose of this study was specialised, so as to allow for the conducted research to be targeted and as applicable to the posed research question as possible. However, its relatively small size could be partially responsible for the results. Although the books were published within a specific time frame, the authors’ ages were not consid-

ered, meaning that generational differences might have influenced the results as well. Similarly, while all the authors were anglophone, they may have come from diverse cultural backgrounds, which could have also affected the findings. It is also important to mention that publishing a book is not a one-man endeavour, but instead involves teams of people; apart from an author, an editor can have a significant impact on the final version of a text. In this study, the editor's gender was not included in the analysis. As only one-hundred books were taken into consideration, and additionally only in fragments, not in their entirety, it could be the case that these fifty specific female-authored books were simpler lexically and syntactically. The books were chosen from a list based on popularity; possibly, the common reader chooses books which are more approachable in general, therefore opting for texts written in simple language, with short sentences. Moreover, I cannot determine how the authors' idiolects influenced the data in comparison to social language factors.

9. Future Research

The notion of character complexity based on author sex is one which definitely carries potential for future research. The study would benefit from being replicated on a larger corpus, or on a database containing books from other literary genres, besides fantasy. The study could also be recreated on corpora of books from different time periods, which could then be compared, to display historical changes in approaches towards presenting female characters in fiction.

10. Open Data Statement

All data and code used in this paper is available under the following link: [www.github.com/antonijordan/MFAuthorsStylometry](https://github.com/antonijordan/MFAuthorsStylometry). DOA 20 November, 2025.

Acknowledgement

I would like to sincerely thank my supervisor, dr Marek Placiński, without whom this paper could not exist.

REFERENCES

- Argamon, S., Koppel, M., Fine, J., & Shimoni, A. R. (2003). Gender, Genre, and Writing Style in Formal Written Texts. *Text & Talk*, 23(3), 321–346.
- de Beauvoir, S. (1952). *The Second Sex*. New York: Knopf.
- Biber, D. (1995). *Dimensions of Register Variation*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Buchholz, S., & Marsi, E. (2006). CoNLL-X shared task on multilingual dependency parsing. *Proceedings of the 10th conference on computational natural language learning (CoNLL)*, 149–164.
- Chomsky, N. (1956). Three models for the description of language. *IRE Transactions on Information Theory*, 2(3), 113–124.
- Conaway, C. M. (2018). Male Gaze and the Heroines of our Era. scholarworks.calstate.edu/concern/theses/hx11xg91m (09.02.2024).
- Coulthard, M. (2004). Author Identification, Idiolect, and Linguistic Uniqueness. *Applied Linguistics*, 25(4), 431–447.
- Covington, M. A. & McFall, J. D. (2010). Cutting the Gordian Knot: The Moving-Average Type-Token Ratio (MATTR). *Journal of Quantitative Linguistics*, 17(2), 94–100.
- Criado-Perez, C. (2019). *Invisible Women: Exposing Data Bias in a World Designed for Men*. Chatto & Windus.
- Dahllöf, M. (2023). Author gender and text characteristics in contemporary Swedish fiction. *Language and Literature: International Journal of Stylistics*, 33(1), 69–100.
- Daelemans, W. (2013). Explanation in Computational Stylometry. In A. Gelbukh (Ed.) *Computational Linguistics and Intelligent Text Processing*, 451–462. Berlin–Heidelberg: Springer. https://doi.org/10.1007/978-3-642-37256-8_37
- Etzaniz, J., Azkune, G., Soroa, A., Lopez de Lacalle, O., & Artetxe, M. (2024). Do Multilingual Language Models Think Better in English? In *Proceedings of the 2024 Conference of the North American Chapter of the Association for Computational Linguistics: Human Language Technologies (Volume 2: Short Papers)*, (pp. 550–564). Mexico: Association for Computational Linguistics.
- Gardiner, J. K. (1981). On Female Identity and Writing by Women. *Critical Inquiry*, 8(2), 347–361.
- Gibson, E. (1998). Linguistic complexity: locality of syntactic dependencies. *Cognition*, 68, 1–76.
- Gomez-Adorno, H., Rios, G., Posadas Durán, J., Sidorov, G., & Sierra, G. (2018). Stylometry-based Approach for Detecting Writing Style Changes in Literary Texts. *Computación y Sistemas*, 22(1), 47–53.
- Grate, R. S. (2015). Love at First Sight? Jane Austen and the Transformative Male Gaze. *Scripps Senior Theses*. 662. scholarship.claremont.edu/scripps_theses/662 (09.02.2024).
- Holmes, D. I. (1994). Authorship Distribution. *Computers and the Humanities*, 28(2), 87–106.
- Kuebler, S., McDonald, R., & Nivre, J. (2009). *Dependency Parsing*. Morgan & Claypool.
- Lakoff R. (1973). Language and woman's place. *Language in Society*, 2(1), 45–79.
- Louwerse, M. M. (2004). Semantic Variation in Idiolect and Sociolect: Corpus Linguistic Evidence from Literary Texts. *Computers and the Humanities*, 38, 207–221.
- Miestamo, M., Sinnemäki, K., Karlsson, F. (Eds.). (2008). *Language Complexity: Typology, Contact, Change*. Amsterdam: John Benjamins.
- Mills, S. (1995). *Feminist Stylistics*. New York: Routledge.

- Mulvey, L. (1975). Visual Pleasure and Narrative Cinema. *Screen*, 16, 6–18.
- Mulvey, L. (1999). Visual Pleasure and Narrative Cinema. In L. Braudy & M. Cohen (Eds.), *Film Theory and Criticism: Introductory Readings* (pp. 833–844). New York: Oxford UP.
- Neal, T., Sundararajan, K., Fatima, A., Yan, Y., Xiang, Y., & Woodward, D. (2017). Surveying Stylometry Techniques and Applications. *ACM Computing Surveys*, 50(6), 1–36.
- Nivre, J. (2007). Incremental non-projective dependency parsing. *Proceedings of human language technologies: the annual conference of the North American chapter of the association for computational linguistics (NAACL HLT)* (pp. 396–403).
- Oliver, K. (2017). The male gaze is more relevant, and more dangerous, than ever. *New Review of Film and Television Studies*, 15(4), 451–455.
- Oya, M. (2011). Syntactic Dependency Distance as Sentence Complexity Measure. *Proceedings of The 16th Conference of Pan-Pacific Association of Applied Linguistics*. Hong Kong.
- Tesnière, L. (1959). *Éléments de syntax structural*. Paris: Klincksieck.
- www.urbandictionary.com/define.php?term=written%20by%20a%20man (20.11.2025).
- Wecker, H. (2013). *The Golem and the Jinni: A Novel*. HarperCollins.
- Xiao, R. (2009). Multidimensional Analysis and the Study of World Englishes. *World Englishes*, 28(4), 421–450.
- Xiao, R. (2010). Corpus Creation. In N. Indurkha & F. J. Damerau (Eds.), *Handbook of Natural Language Processing* (pp. 147–165). New York: Chapman and Hall/CRC.

Sources

- www.goodreads.com/list/show/38633/ (23.06.2024).
- www.reddit.com/r/menwritingwomen (23.06.2024).